H2 Math Summary

Notes

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Contents

1 Systems of Linear Equations 3

1.1 Forming the Equations . . . 3
1.2 Special Case: Number of Equations > Number of Variables . . . 3
1.3 Special Case: Number of Equations < Number of Variables . . . 4

2 Inequalities 5

2.1 Solving Inequalities Graphically . . . 5
2.2 Sign Test Technique . . . 6
2.3 Common Substitutions . . . 7

3 Graphing Techniques 8

3.1 Key Features of a Curve . . . 8
3.2 Graphs of Rational Functions . . . 11
3.3 Symmetry . . . 12
3.4 Basic Graphs . . . 12
3.5 Parametric Equations . . . 13
3.5.1 Finding the Cartesian Equation . . . 13
3.5.2 Asymptotes (Parametric Equations) . . . 14
3.5.3 Intersections . . . 14
3.6 Conics . . . 15

4 Graphing Transformations 17

4.1 Translations and Scalings . . . 17
4.2 Reflections . . . 18
4.3 Combining Transformations . . . 18
4.4 Modulus Graphs . . . 19
4.5 Reciprocal Graphs $y = \frac{1}{\mathrm{f}(x)}$ . . . 20
4.6 Derivative Graphs $y = \mathrm{f}'(x)$ . . . 21
4.7 Reverse Transformations . . . 21

5 Functions 22

5.1 Functions, Domain and Range . . . 22
5.2 Inverse Functions . . . 23
5.2.1 Removing the Modulus . . . 24
5.3 Composite Functions . . . 25
5.3.1 Composite with a Piecewise Function . . . 25
5.4 Functional Powers and Self-Inverse Functions . . . 26
5.5 Piecewise and Periodic Functions . . . 26
5.5.1 Inverse of a Piecewise Function . . . 27

6 Sequences and Series **28**

6.1 Recurrence Relations ... 28
6.1.1 Limit of a Sequence ... 29
6.2 Sigma Notation ... 29
6.3 Standard Formulas ... 30
6.4 Augmented Forms ... 30
6.5 Convergence ... 31
6.6 Finding u_n or S_n from Each Other ... 31
6.6.1 Finding u_n from S_n ... 31
6.6.2 Finding S_n from u_n ... 31

7 Arithmetic and Geometric Progressions **32**

7.1 Summing ... 32
7.2 Common Questions ... 33
7.2.1 Comparing AP and GP terms ... 33
7.2.2 Bank Questions ... 33
7.2.3 Contextual Questions ... 34

8 Differentiation **35**

8.1 Basic Differentials ... 35
8.1.1 Implicit Differentiation ... 36
8.1.2 Parametric Differentiation ... 36

1 Systems of Linear Equations

1.1 Forming the Equations

We read the context of the question and form equations depending on the context of the question.

Example 1.1

$$\left.\begin{aligned} a+b+c&=176 && —(1)\\ 0.85a+0.90b+0.95c&=161.80 && —(2)\\ 0.93a+0.95b+0.98c&=169.56 && —(3)\end{aligned}\right\} \Rightarrow a=32,\ b=44,\ c=100$$

Example 1.2

The "variables" may be expressions. To find x, y and z, use the given information to form the equations:

$$\left.\begin{aligned} 2x^3+3\ln y-\mathrm{e}^z&=18 && —(1)\\ x^3-\ln y+2\mathrm{e}^z&=9 && —(2)\\ x^3+2\ln y+\mathrm{e}^z&=11 && —(3)\end{aligned}\right\} \Rightarrow x^3=8,\ \ln y=1,\ \mathrm{e}^z=1$$

It is technically still 'linear' because we can think of $A=x^3$, $B=\ln y$, $C=\mathrm{e}^z$, which turns it into a linear system in A, B and C. A truly nonlinear equation could look like $x^2+x+y^2+2y-3z^3-xz+xy=1$; it cannot be made linear this way, because x appears as both x^2 and x, and there are product terms such as xz and xy.

1.2 Special Case: Number of Equations > Number of Variables

Sometimes the number of equations is more than the number of variables, and the solution must satisfy all of the equations.

Example 1.3

$$\left.\begin{aligned} \lambda+\mu&=1 && —(1)\\ 2\lambda-\mu&=5 && —(2)\end{aligned}\right\} \Rightarrow \lambda=2,\ \mu=-1$$

$$\lambda+3\mu=-1 \qquad —(3)$$

Sometimes there may be no solution, e.g. skew lines in vectors. In this case, solve for λ and μ using equations (1) and (2). Then sub into (3).

> **Note**
>
> Check (3): if LHS = RHS, the equations are consistent; if LHS ≠ RHS, there is no solution.

1.3 Special Case: Number of Equations < Number of Variables

Sometimes the number of equations is less than the number of variables, so there are infinitely many solutions.

Example 1.4

$$\left.\begin{aligned} x+y+z=6 \quad &—(1) \\ x-y+2z=5 \quad &—(2) \end{aligned}\right\} \Rightarrow x=\tfrac{11}{2}-\tfrac{3}{2}z,\ y=\tfrac{1}{2}+\tfrac{1}{2}z,\ z=z$$

> **Note**
>
> Useful trick: in contextual questions, the variables are usually non-negative integers, $z \in \mathbb{Z}_0^+$, so use this to find the solution from the general solution.

When $z=z$, it means that there are infinitely many solutions, and z can be any real value. So just sub that into x and y to get a correct solution.

$z=-1: (7,0,-1)$ $z=0: (\tfrac{11}{2},\tfrac{1}{2},0)$ $z=1: (4,1,1)$ $z=2: (\tfrac{5}{2},\tfrac{3}{2},2)$

$z=3: (1,2,3)$ $z=4: (-\tfrac{1}{2},\tfrac{5}{2},4)$ $z=5: (-2,3,5)$ $z=6: (-\tfrac{7}{2},\tfrac{7}{2},6)$

We can use the GC table to find all these solutions.

2 Inequalities

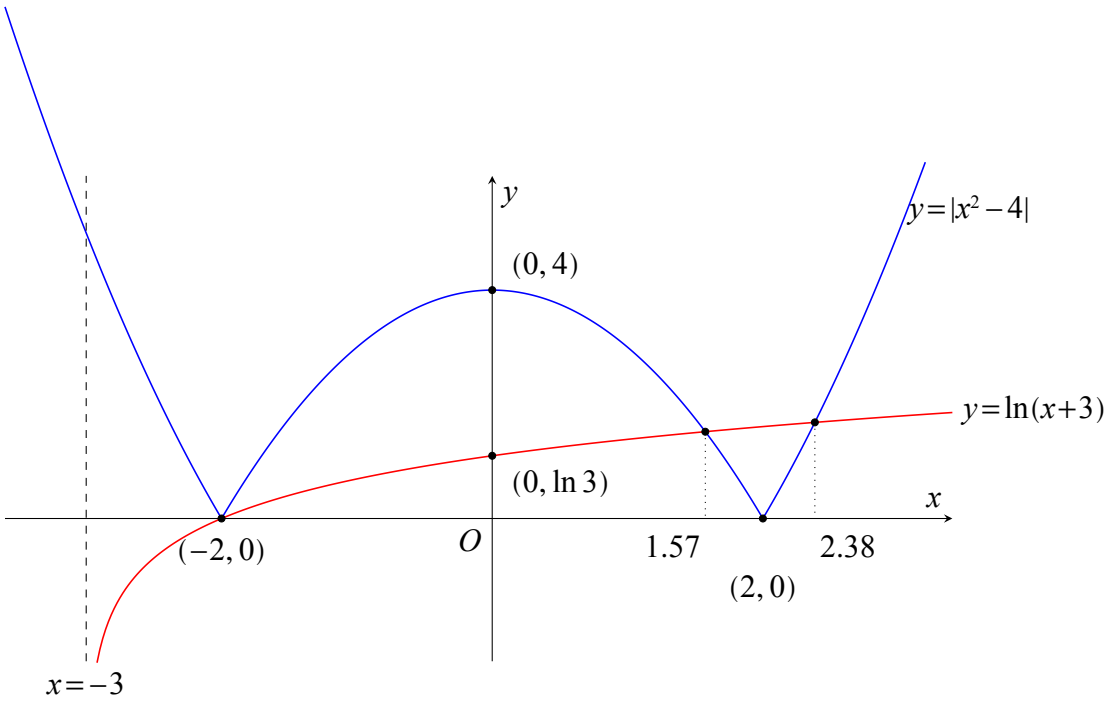
2.1 Solving Inequalities Graphically

Some inequalities cannot be solved algebraically, so we sketch the graphs and read off the solution.

- Rearrange to $f(x) > 0$, or compare $y = f(x)$ with $y = g(x)$.
- Sketch on the GC; mark the intersections and the asymptotes.
- Read off the x-values where the required graph is above or below.

Example 2.1

$$|x^2 - 4| \leqslant \ln(x+3)$$



Using GC, intersections at $x = 1.5746$, $x = 2.3840$

$$\therefore x = -2 \text{ or } 1.57 \leqslant x \leqslant 2.38$$

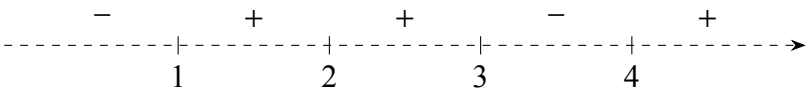
2.2 Sign Test Technique

We solve rational inequalities by finding where the expression changes sign.

- Make the right-hand side 0.
- Do **not** cross multiply unless the expression or bracket is always positive.
- Expressions that are always positive can be divided across, e.g. a quadratic with discriminant <0 and positive leading coefficient: $x^2+2x+5=(x+1)^2+4>0$.

Example 2.2

$$\frac{(x-1)(x-2)^2}{(x-3)(x-4)} \leqslant 0$$



$x=2$: numerator $=0$ (included)

$x=3,\ x=4$: denominator $=0$ (excluded)

$\therefore x \leqslant 1$ or $x=2$ or $3<x<4$

You can sketch the graph to check the answer.

> **Note**
>
> Crossing a factor with an odd power changes the sign; crossing a factor with an even power keeps the sign the same.

2.3 Common Substitutions

Once an inequality in x is solved, we can replace x with an expression to deduce the solution of a related inequality.

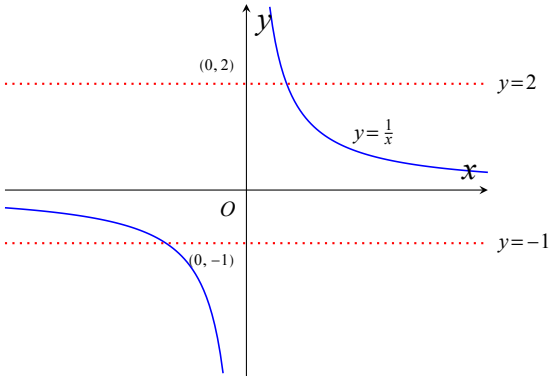
Replace x by	**Original inequality**		
	$x>2$	$x<-1$	$-1<x<2$
e^x	$x>\ln 2$	no solution	$x<\ln 2$
$\ln x$	$x>e^2$	$0<x<e^{-1}$	$e^{-1}<x<e^2$
$-x$	$x<-2$	$x>1$	$-2<x<1$
$x+1$	$x>1$	$x<-2$	$-2<x<1$
$\lvert x\rvert$	$x<-2$ or $x>2$	no solution	$-2<x<2$
x^2	$x<-\sqrt{2}$ or $x>\sqrt{2}$	no solution	$-\sqrt{2}<x<\sqrt{2}$
$\frac{1}{x}$	$\left(0<x<\frac{1}{2}\right)$	$(-1<x<0)$	$\left(x<-1 \text{ or } x>\frac{1}{2}\right)$
$\cos x,\ 0\leqslant x\leqslant 2\pi$	(no solution)	(no solution)	$(0\leqslant x<\pi \text{ or } \pi<x\leqslant 2\pi)$

Regardless of whatever substitution you use, using a graph will always work, but some can be solved without a graph.

For $\frac{1}{x}$, $\sin x$ and $\cos x$, draw the graph to solve.

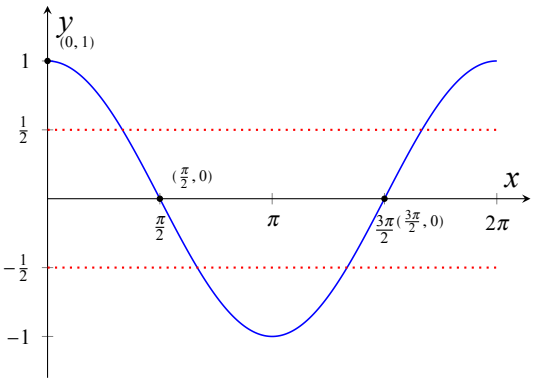
Example 2.3

$$\frac{1}{x}>2, \quad \frac{1}{x}<-1, \quad -1<\frac{1}{x}<2$$



Example 2.4

$$\cos x>\tfrac{1}{2}, \quad \cos x<-\tfrac{1}{2},$$
$$-\tfrac{1}{2}<\cos x<\tfrac{1}{2}, \quad 0\leqslant x\leqslant 2\pi$$

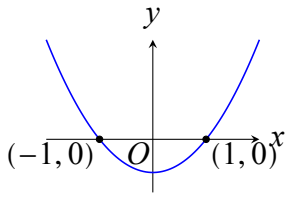


3 Graphing Techniques

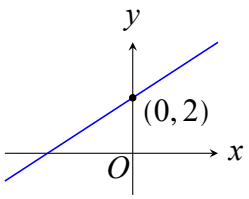
3.1 Key Features of a Curve

Key features of a curve:

(a) ***x*-intercepts:** let $y=0$.
e.g. $y=x^2-1$: $x^2-1=0 \Rightarrow x=\pm 1$.

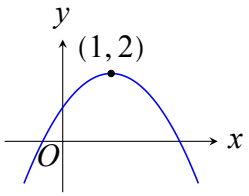


***y*-intercepts:** let $x=0$.
e.g. $y=x+2$: $y=2$.

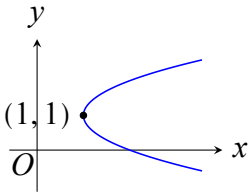


(b) **Stationary points**, when $\frac{dy}{dx}=0$ or $\frac{dy}{dx}$ is undefined. Label upon request.

Horizontal turning point: $\frac{dy}{dx}=0$ (tangent horizontal).
e.g. $y=-(x-1)^2+2$, maximum point $(1,2)$.

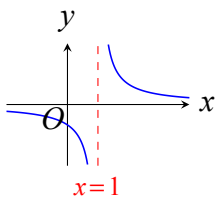
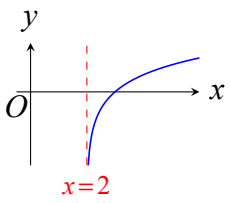
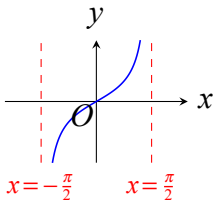


Vertical turning point: $\frac{dy}{dx}$ undefined (tangent vertical).
e.g. $x=(y-1)^2+1$, turning point $(1,1)$.



(c) Asymptotes

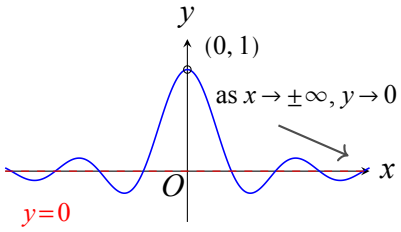
(i) **Vertical asymptotes.** If as $x \to k$, $y \to \pm\infty$, then $x = k$ is a vertical asymptote.

Common Occurrence	**Condition**	**Example and asymptote**	**Graph**
Fractions	denominator $= 0$	$y = \dfrac{1}{x-1}$ $x - 1 = 0 \Rightarrow x = 1$ $\therefore x = 1$ is a vertical asymptote	
Logarithmic graphs	inside ln $= 0$	$y = \ln(x-2)$ $x - 2 = 0 \Rightarrow x = 2$ $\therefore x = 2$ is a vertical asymptote	
Tangent graphs	inside tan $= \dfrac{\pi}{2} + k\pi$, $k \in \mathbb{Z}$	$y = \tan x$ $x = \pm\dfrac{\pi}{2}, \pm\dfrac{3\pi}{2}, \ldots$	

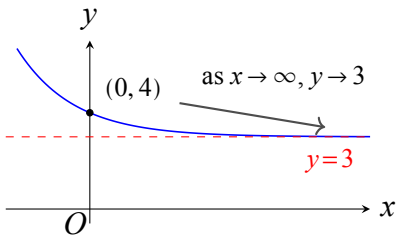
(ii) **Horizontal asymptotes.** As $x \to \pm\infty$, if $y \to k$, then $y = k$ is a horizontal asymptote.

- To find horizontal asymptotes, one should sub in $x \to \pm\infty$ into the equation. This is the only foolproof way to do it.
- A curve **CAN** intersect its horizontal asymptote.

Note: there are more cases of horizontal asymptotes, but these are the common cases.



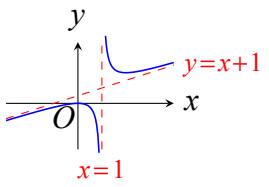
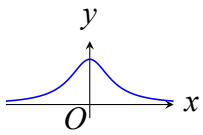
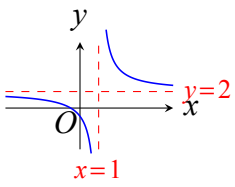
e.g. $y = \dfrac{\sin x}{x}$: curve crosses $y = 0$



e.g. $y = 3 + e^{-x}$

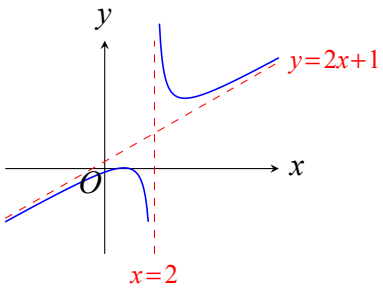
Useful trick to find horizontal asymptotes

For rational functions $\frac{P(x)}{Q(x)}$:

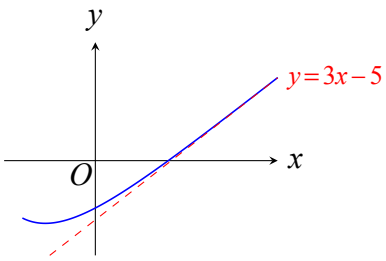
Case	Horizontal asymptote	Example	Graph
numerator power > denominator power	no horizontal asymptote	$y=\frac{x^2}{x-1}$	
numerator power < denominator power	$y=0$	$y=\frac{1}{x^2+1}$	
numerator power = denominator power	ratio of coefficients of highest power	$y=\frac{2x+1}{x-1}$ $y=2$	

(iii) **Oblique asymptotes.** An asymptote of the form $y=mx+c$, $m\neq 0$.

Graphs with oblique asymptotes come in the form $y=mx+c+\mathrm{g}(x)$, where $\mathrm{g}(x)\to 0$ as $x\to\pm\infty$; the oblique asymptote is $y=mx+c$.



e.g. $y=2x+1+\frac{3}{x-2}$



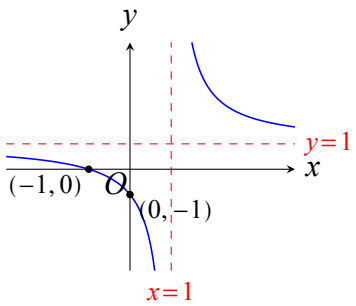
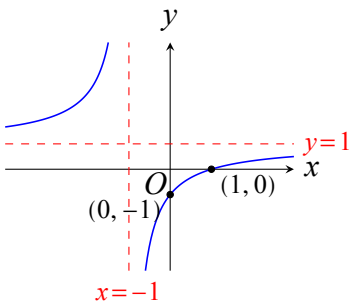
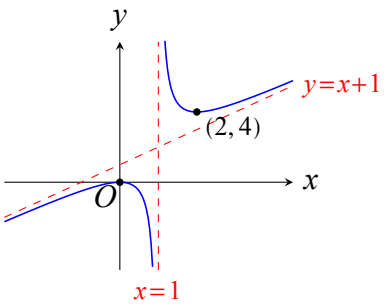
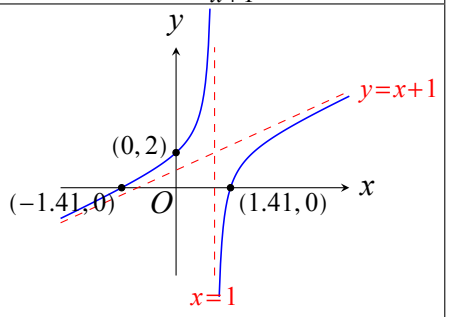
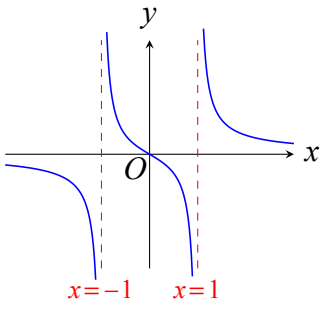
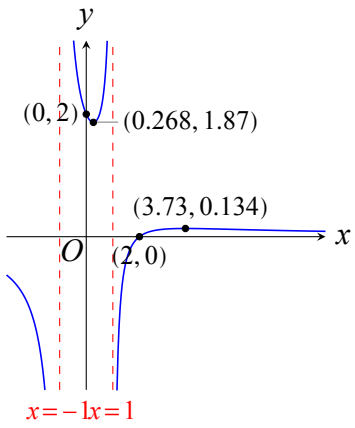
e.g. $y=3x-5+\mathrm{e}^{-x}$

Note

For parametric curves, oblique asymptotes (if they exist) can only be found via the cartesian equation.

3.2 Graphs of Rational Functions

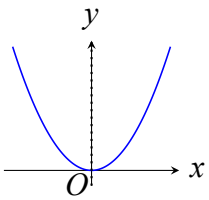
Two common shapes for each type.

Type and form	Shape 1	Shape 2
Linear / linear $y=\frac{Ax+B}{Cx+D}$ Horizontal asymptote: $y=\frac{A}{C}$ Vertical asymptote: $x=-\frac{D}{C}$	 $y=\frac{x+1}{x-1}$	 $y=\frac{x-1}{x+1}$
Quadratic / linear $y=\frac{ax^2+bx+c}{dx+e}$ $=Ax+B+\frac{C}{dx+e}$ Oblique asymptote: $y=Ax+B$ Vertical asymptote: $x=-\frac{e}{d}$	 2 turning points $y=x+1+\frac{1}{x-1}\quad\left(\frac{Cd}{A}>0\right)$	 No turning points $y=x+1-\frac{1}{x-1}\quad\left(\frac{Cd}{A}<0\right)$
Linear / quadratic $y=\frac{ax+b}{cx^2+dx+e}$ Horizontal asymptote: $y=0$ Vertical asymptotes: solve $cx^2+dx+e=0$ (possibly no roots)	 $y=\frac{x}{(x-1)(x+1)}$	 $y=\frac{x-2}{(x-1)(x+1)}$

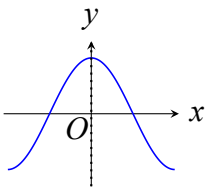
3.3 Symmetry

Even functions: $f(-x)=f(x)$.

The graph is symmetric about the y-axis (line of symmetry $x=0$, dotted).



e.g. $y=x^2$

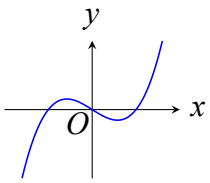


e.g. $y=\cos x$

Odd functions: $f(-x)=-f(x)$.

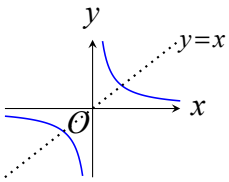
The graph is symmetric about the origin.

e.g. $y=x^3-x$

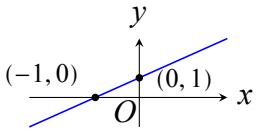
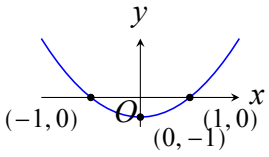
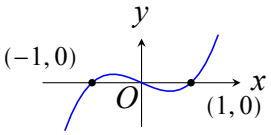
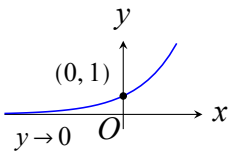
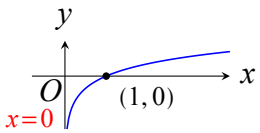
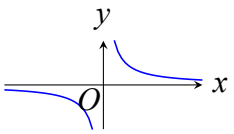
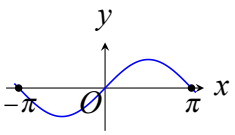
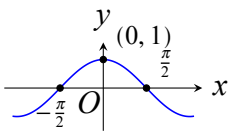
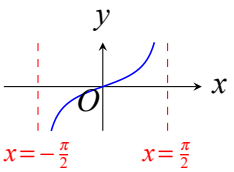
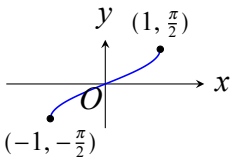
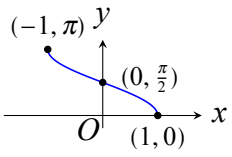
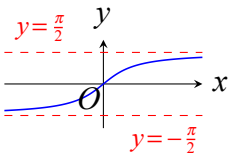


Symmetry about $y=x$: swapping x and y gives the same equation.

e.g. $y=\dfrac{1}{x}$ $(xy=1)$



3.4 Basic Graphs

 Linear $y=x+1$	 Quadratic $y=x^2-1$	 Cubic $y=x^3-x$
 Exponential $y=e^x$	 Logarithm $y=\ln x$	 Reciprocal $y=\frac{1}{x}$
 $y=\sin x$	 $y=\cos x$	 $y=\tan x$
 $y=\sin^{-1}x$	 $y=\cos^{-1}x$	 $y=\tan^{-1}x$

3.5 Parametric Equations

A curve C can be described by giving both coordinates in terms of a parameter t:

$$x=x(t), \quad y=y(t), \quad t\in T$$

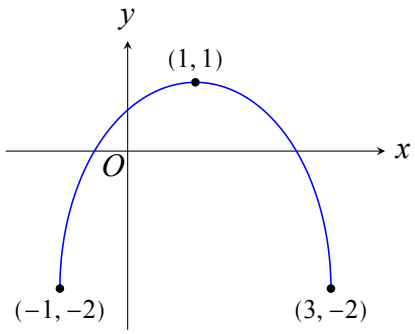
Example 3.1

$x=2\cos t+1, \quad y=3\sin t-2, \quad 0\leqslant t\leqslant \pi$

$t=0$: $(3,-2)$ $\quad t=\frac{\pi}{2}$: $(1,1)$ $\quad t=\pi$: $(-1,-2)$

$x=0$: $\left(0, \frac{3\sqrt{3}}{2}-2\right)$

$y=0$: $\left(1\pm\frac{2\sqrt{5}}{3}, 0\right)$



> **CAUTION: sketching from parametric equations**
>
> **ALWAYS take note of the range of t when sketching graphs.** The restriction on t decides which part of the curve exists: above, $0\leqslant t\leqslant \pi$ gives only the upper half of the ellipse, with endpoints $(3,-2)$ and $(-1,-2)$, not the whole ellipse.

3.5.1 Finding the Cartesian Equation

The cartesian equation of C is an equation without the parameter t. Common techniques:

① **Make t the subject.** e.g. $x=2t-1, y=3t^2+e^t, t\in\mathbb{R}$

$$t=\frac{x+1}{2}$$

$$y=3\left(\frac{x+1}{2}\right)^2+e^{\frac{x+1}{2}}$$

② **Trigo identity formulas.** e.g. $x=2\cos t+1, y=3\sin t-2, 0\leqslant t\leqslant\pi$

$$\cos t=\frac{x-1}{2}, \quad \sin t=\frac{y+2}{3}$$

$$\cos^2 t+\sin^2 t=1$$

$$\frac{(x-1)^2}{4}+\frac{(y+2)^2}{9}=1, \quad y\geqslant -2$$

③ **Others.** e.g. $x=t-\frac{1}{t}, y=t+\frac{1}{t}, t\neq 0$

$$y+x=2t, \quad y-x=\frac{2}{t}$$

$$(y+x)(y-x)=4$$

$$y^2-x^2=4$$

Note: Avoid finding the cartesian eqn if the question did not ask you to.

3.5.2 Asymptotes (Parametric Equations)

- Find (if possible) $t \to t_0$ such that $x \to x_0, y \to \pm\infty$ (vertical asymptote $x = x_0$), or $y \to y_0, x \to \pm\infty$ (horizontal asymptote $y = y_0$).
- Oblique asymptotes (if they exist) can only be found via the cartesian equation.

Example 3.2

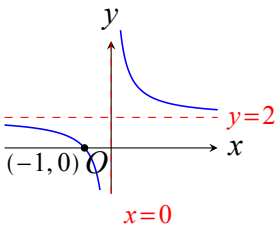
$x = \dfrac{1}{t-1},\ y = 2t,\ t \neq 1$

As $t \to \pm\infty,\ x \to 0,\ y \to \pm\infty$

$\therefore x = 0$ is a vertical asymptote

As $t \to 1,\ x \to \pm\infty,\ y \to 2$

$\therefore y = 2$ is a horizontal asymptote



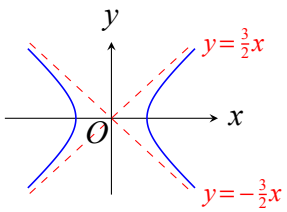
Oblique asymptotes. Cannot be found from the parametric form alone; find the cartesian equation first.

e.g. $x = 2\sec\theta,\ y = 3\tan\theta$

$$\sec^2\theta - \tan^2\theta = 1$$

$$\frac{x^2}{4} - \frac{y^2}{9} = 1$$

Oblique asymptotes: $y = \pm\dfrac{3}{2}x$



3.5.3 Intersections

Intersection between a parametric curve and another curve: sometimes both equations are needed.

e.g. $x = 2t + \ln t,\ y = t^2 - 1,\ t > 0$ and the circle $x^2 + y^2 = 25$:

$$(2t + \ln t)^2 + (t^2 - 1)^2 = 25$$

Using GC, $t = 0.00735$ or $t = 1.86$ (both > 0)

$\therefore$ intersections: $(-4.90,\ -1.00)$ and $(4.35,\ 2.47)$

This equation in t cannot be solved algebraically, so the GC is needed.

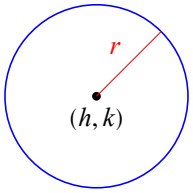
3.6 Conics

Circle

$$(x-h)^2+(y-k)^2=r^2$$

Centre: (h,k)

Radius: r

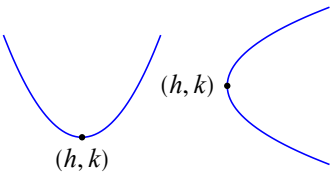


Parabola

$$y-k=a(x-h)^2 \qquad x-h=b(y-k)^2$$

$y-k=a(x-h)^2$:
turning point (h,k), $\dfrac{dy}{dx}=0$

$x-h=b(y-k)^2$:
turning point (h,k), $\dfrac{dy}{dx}$ undefined



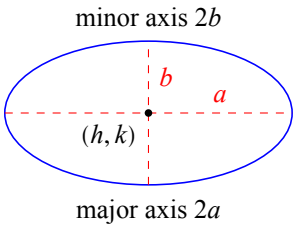
Ellipse

$$\frac{(x-h)^2}{a^2}+\frac{(y-k)^2}{b^2}=1$$

Centre: (h,k)

"Horizontal radius" $=a$, "vertical radius" $=b$

For $a>b$: major axis horizontal (length $2a$, semi-major a); minor axis vertical (length $2b$, semi-minor b).



> ⋆ RHS ⇒ numerator coefficients of x^2, y^2 must all be 1.

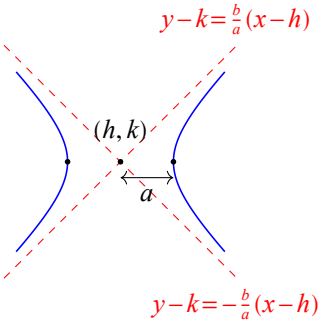
Hyperbola: Type I

$$\frac{(x-h)^2}{a^2}-\frac{(y-k)^2}{b^2}=1$$

Centre: (h,k)

Distance from centre to vertices $=a$

Asymptotes (dashed): $y-k=\pm\frac{b}{a}(x-h)$



> ⋆ RHS ⇒ numerator coefficients of x^2, y^2 must all be 1.
> ⋆ Equation of asymptotes: $y-k=\pm\frac{b}{a}(x-h)$

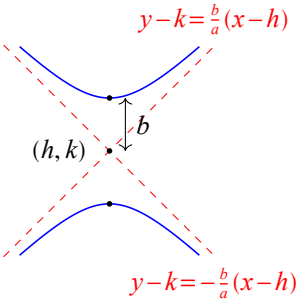
Hyperbola: Type II

$$\frac{(y-k)^2}{b^2}-\frac{(x-h)^2}{a^2}=1$$

Centre: (h,k)

Distance from centre to vertices $=b$

Asymptotes (dashed): $y-k=\pm\frac{b}{a}(x-h)$



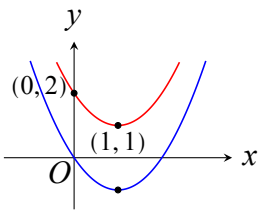
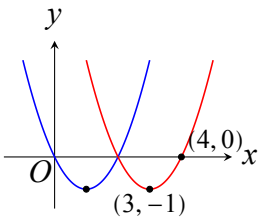
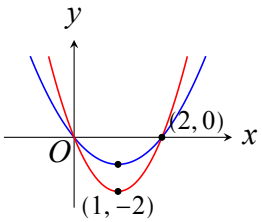
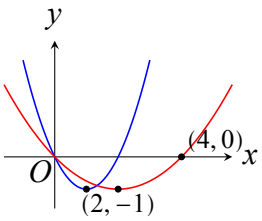
> ⋆ RHS ⇒ numerator coefficients of x^2, y^2 must all be 1.
> ⋆ Equation of asymptotes: $y-k=\pm\frac{b}{a}(x-h)$

4 Graphing Transformations

Every transformation comes from **replacing** x **or** y in the equation $y=\mathrm{f}(x)$.

Throughout, blue is $y=\mathrm{f}(x)=x(x-2)$, with intercepts $(0,0)$, $(2,0)$ and minimum point $(1,-1)$; red is the transformed graph.

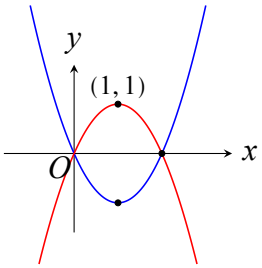
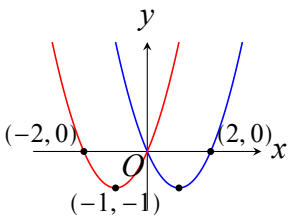
4.1 Translations and Scalings

Transformation	Replacement	Result	Graph
Translation of a units in the positive y direction	replace y with $y-a$: $y-a=\mathrm{f}(x)$	$y=\mathrm{f}(x)+a$ (graph: $a=2$)	
Translation of a units in the positive x direction	replace x with $x-a$	$y=\mathrm{f}(x-a)$ (graph: $a=2$)	
Scaling by factor a parallel to the y-axis	replace y with $\frac{y}{a}$: $\frac{y}{a}=\mathrm{f}(x)$	$y=a\mathrm{f}(x)$ (graph: $a=2$)	
Scaling by factor a parallel to the x-axis	replace x with $\frac{x}{a}$	$y=\mathrm{f}\left(\frac{x}{a}\right)$ (graph: $a=2$)	

CAUTION

Every replacement acts the "opposite" way to what it looks like: $x-2$ moves the graph in the **positive** x direction; $y=\mathrm{f}(2x)$ is a scaling by factor $\frac{1}{2}$ (not 2) parallel to the x-axis.
Replacing x does **not** mean replacing the input of f, and replacing y does not mean replacing the output $\mathrm{f}(x)$.
If you are ever confused, think of $\sin x$ vs $\sin 2x$.

4.2 Reflections

Transformation	Replacement	Result	Graph
Reflection about the x-axis	replace y with $-y$: $-y=\mathrm{f}(x)$	$y=-\mathrm{f}(x)$	
Reflection about the y-axis	replace x with $-x$	$y=\mathrm{f}(-x)$	

4.3 Combining Transformations

Functions of the form $y=a\mathrm{f}(bx+c)+d,\ \ a,b,c,d\in\mathbb{R}$: replace x and y **one step at a time**.

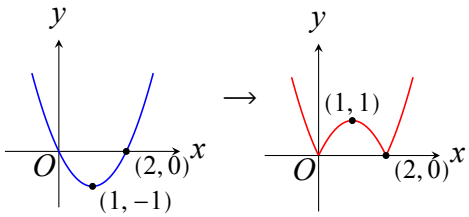
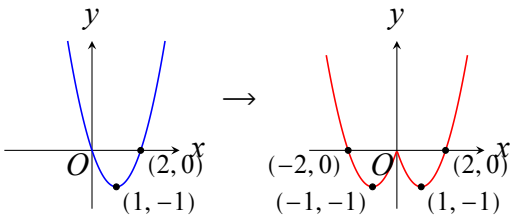
Example 4.1

$y=\mathrm{f}(x)\ \longrightarrow\ y=2\mathrm{f}(2x-1)+1$

Replacement	Transformation	Function
replace x with $x-1$	translation of 1 unit in the positive x direction	$y=\mathrm{f}(x-1)$
replace x with $2x$	scaling by factor $\frac{1}{2}$ parallel to the x-axis	$y=\mathrm{f}(2x-1)$
replace y with $\frac{y}{2}$	scaling by factor 2 parallel to the y-axis	$y=2\mathrm{f}(2x-1)$
replace y with $y-1$	translation of 1 unit in the positive y direction	$y=2\mathrm{f}(2x-1)+1$

4.4 Modulus Graphs

Every modulus graph can be partitioned into a "+" part and a "−" part: $|x|=x$ for $x \geqslant 0$, $|x|=-x$ for $x<0$.

Graph	How to sketch	Graph
$y=\|f(x)\|$	Keep the part on or above the x-axis; reflect the part below the x-axis about the x-axis. Sharp points at the x-intercepts.	
$y=f(\|x\|)$	Remove the part on the left of the y-axis; reflect the part on the right of the y-axis about the y-axis.	

Example 4.2

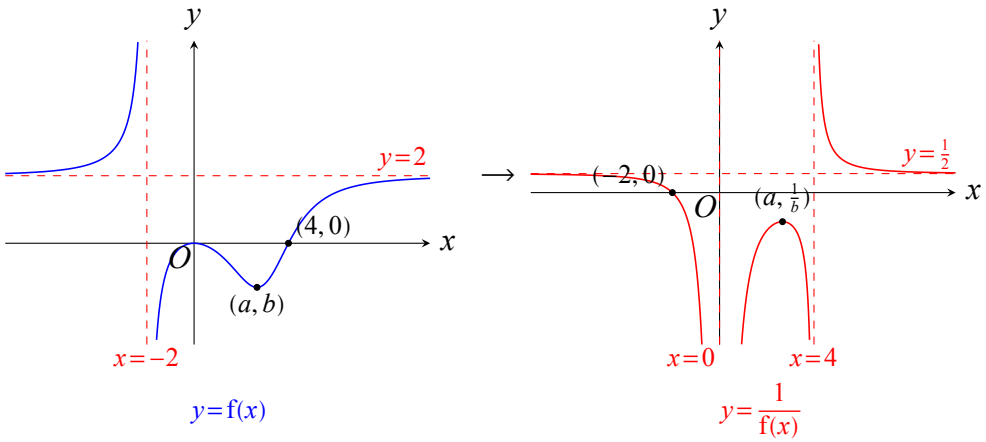
$y=f(x) \longrightarrow y=|f(-2x+1)|$

Replacement	Transformation	Function
replace x with $x+1$	translation of 1 unit in the negative x direction	$y=f(x+1)$
replace x with $-x$	reflection about the y-axis	$y=f(-x+1)$
replace x with $2x$	scaling by factor $\frac{1}{2}$ parallel to the x-axis	$y=f(-2x+1)$
$\|f\|$	reflect parts below the x-axis about the x-axis	$y=\|f(-2x+1)\|$

4.5 Reciprocal Graphs $y=\frac{1}{\mathrm{f}(x)}$

Analyse the new curve at the critical points of $y=\mathrm{f}(x)$.

x-intercept $(a,0)$	$\longleftrightarrow$	vertical asymptote $x=a$
vertical asymptote $x=a$	$\longleftrightarrow$	$y\to 0$: point $(a,0)$ (excluded)
maximum point (a,b), $b\neq 0$	$\longleftrightarrow$	minimum point $\left(a,\frac{1}{b}\right)$
minimum point (a,b), $b\neq 0$	$\longleftrightarrow$	maximum point $\left(a,\frac{1}{b}\right)$
horizontal asymptote $y=k$, $k\neq 0$	$\longleftrightarrow$	horizontal asymptote $y=\frac{1}{k}$
$y\to\pm\infty$ (incl. oblique asymptote)	$\longleftrightarrow$	horizontal asymptote $y=0$
$y=\pm 1$	$\longleftrightarrow$	same point $(\frac{1}{\pm 1}=\pm 1)$
$\mathrm{f}(x)>0$ / $\mathrm{f}(x)<0$	$\longleftrightarrow$	$\frac{1}{\mathrm{f}(x)}>0$ / $\frac{1}{\mathrm{f}(x)}<0$ (same sign)



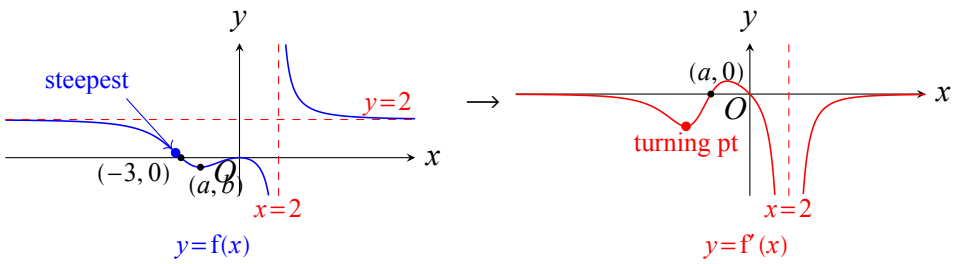
Note: sketching $y=\frac{1}{\mathrm{f}(x)}$

- Same sign: $\mathrm{f}>0\Rightarrow\frac{1}{\mathrm{f}}>0$, $\mathrm{f}<0\Rightarrow\frac{1}{\mathrm{f}}<0$.
- $|\mathrm{f}|$ large $\Rightarrow\left|\frac{1}{\mathrm{f}}\right|$ small; $|\mathrm{f}|$ small $\Rightarrow\left|\frac{1}{\mathrm{f}}\right|$ large.
- $\mathrm{f}=0\Rightarrow\frac{1}{\mathrm{f}}$ undefined (vertical asymptote).
- $\mathrm{f}=\pm 1\Rightarrow\frac{1}{\mathrm{f}}=\pm 1$ (graphs meet).

4.6 Derivative Graphs $y=\mathrm{f}'(x)$

$\mathrm{f}'(x)=\dfrac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}x}$ is the gradient of $y=\mathrm{f}(x)$: read off the gradient on each interval.

$y=\mathrm{f}(x)$	$y=\mathrm{f}'(x)$
stationary point at $x=a$	x-intercept $(a,0)$
increasing / decreasing	above / below the x-axis
point of inflexion (max. or min. gradient)	turning point
vertical asymptote $x=a$	vertical asymptote $x=a$
horizontal asymptote $y=k$	horizontal asymptote $y=0$
oblique asymptote $y=mx+c$	horizontal asymptote $y=m$



i The turning point on the derivative graph corresponds to the steepest point on the original graph.

CAUTION

i Mark x-coordinates only where they come from $y=\mathrm{f}(x)$: the y-values of $y=\mathrm{f}'(x)$ are generally **not** known from the graph of $y=\mathrm{f}(x)$.

4.7 Reverse Transformations

If $y=\mathrm{f}(x)$ undergoes a sequence of transformations to give a known $y=\mathrm{g}(x)$, undo the transformations **in reverse order**, each with its opposite replacement.

Example 4.3

$y=\mathrm{f}(x)$ undergoes, in order, the following to give $y=6\mathrm{e}^{-x+3}$. Find $\mathrm{f}(x)$.

A: translation of 2 units in the negative x direction

B: reflection about the y-axis

C: scaling by factor 3 parallel to the y-axis

Step	Opposite transformation	Replacement	Function
C^{-1}	scale by factor $\frac{1}{3}$ parallel to the y-axis	replace y with $3y$	$y=2\mathrm{e}^{-x+3}$
B^{-1}	reflect about the y-axis	replace x with $-x$	$y=2\mathrm{e}^{x+3}$
A^{-1}	translate 2 units in the positive x direction	replace x with $x-2$	$y=2\mathrm{e}^{x+1}$

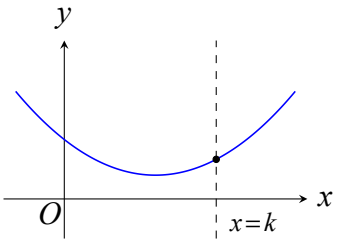
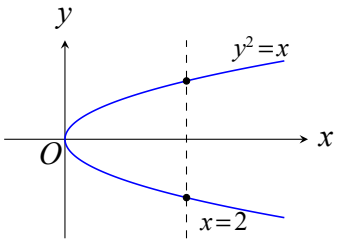
$\therefore\ \mathrm{f}(x)=2\mathrm{e}^{x+1}$

5 Functions

5.1 Functions, Domain and Range

$$\mathrm{f}: x \mapsto \underbrace{x^2+3x+2}_{\text{rule f}(x)}, \quad x \in \mathbb{R}, \quad \underbrace{x \geqslant 0}_{\text{domain } D_\mathrm{f}}$$

A function is a relation that gives **exactly one** value of y for each $x \in D_\mathrm{f}$.

It's a function	**Not a function**
 every vertical line $x=k$, $k \in D_\mathrm{f}$, cuts the graph **exactly once**	 one vertical line ($x=2$) cuts the graph **more than once**

Inequality	**Set notation**	**Interval**
$a<x<b$	$\{x \in \mathbb{R} : a<x<b\}$	(a, b)
$a \leqslant x \leqslant b$	$\{x \in \mathbb{R} : a \leqslant x \leqslant b\}$	$[a, b]$
$a \leqslant x<b$	$\{x \in \mathbb{R} : a \leqslant x<b\}$	$[a, b)$
$x>a$	$\{x \in \mathbb{R} : x>a\}$	(a, ∞)
$x \in \mathbb{R},\ x \neq 0$	$\mathbb{R} \setminus \{0\}$	$(-\infty, 0) \cup (0, \infty)$

CAUTION

To find the range of a function, **ALWAYS** sketch its graph $y=\mathrm{f}(x)$, $x \in D_\mathrm{f}$, and read the range off the graph. **Never** just sub in the endpoints of the domain.

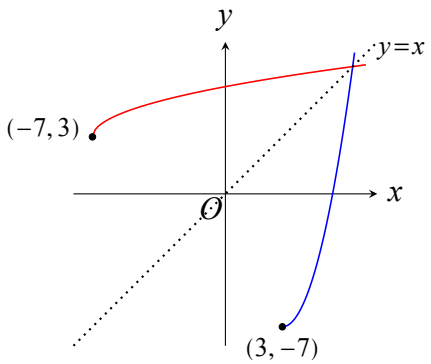
5.2 Inverse Functions

	Working
Exists	**Exists:** f is one-to-one: every line $y=k,\ k\in\mathbb{R}$, cuts $y=\mathrm{f}(x)$ **at most once** $\Rightarrow \mathrm{f}^{-1}$ exists. $\Rightarrow$ f is one-to-one, thus f^{-1} exists. **Does not exist:** e.g. $\mathrm{f}(x)=(x-3)^2-7,\ x\in\mathbb{R}$: the line $y=0$ cuts $y=\mathrm{f}(x)$ **twice** (at $x=3\pm\sqrt{7}$) $\Rightarrow \mathrm{f}^{-1}$ does not exist. Alternatively: $\exists\, x_1\neq x_2$ such that $\mathrm{f}(x_1)=\mathrm{f}(x_2)$ $\therefore$ f is not one-one $\Rightarrow \mathrm{f}^{-1}$ does not exist.
Rule	make x the subject of $y=\mathrm{f}(x)$
Domain	$D_{\mathrm{f}^{-1}}=R_{\mathrm{f}}$
Range	$R_{\mathrm{f}^{-1}}=D_{\mathrm{f}}$
Graph	reflection of $y=\mathrm{f}(x)$ about $y=x$: all x- and y-coordinates are swapped, $(a,b)\to(b,a)$

Example 5.1

$\mathrm{f}: x\mapsto (x-3)^2-7,\ x\geqslant 3$

$$y=(x-3)^2-7$$
$$x-3=\sqrt{y+7}\quad (x\geqslant 3)$$
$$x=3+\sqrt{y+7}$$
$$R_{\mathrm{f}}=[-7,\infty)$$
$$\therefore \mathrm{f}^{-1}: x\mapsto 3+\sqrt{x+7},\ x\in\mathbb{R},\ x\geqslant -7$$



CAUTION

- When drawing $y=\mathrm{f}(x)$ and $y=\mathrm{f}^{-1}(x)$ together, use the **same scale** on both axes.
- $\mathrm{ff}^{-1}(x)=\mathrm{f}^{-1}\mathrm{f}(x)=x$, but $D_{\mathrm{ff}^{-1}}=D_{\mathrm{f}^{-1}}=R_{\mathrm{f}}$ while $D_{\mathrm{f}^{-1}\mathrm{f}}=D_{\mathrm{f}}$.
- Solving $\mathrm{f}(x)=\mathrm{f}^{-1}(x)$: it is **not always** $\mathrm{f}(x)=x$ (only when the curves meet on $y=x$).

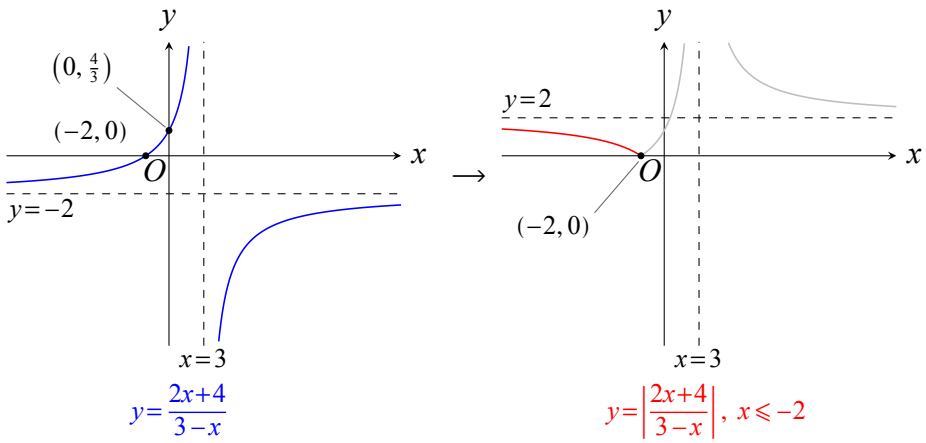
5.2.1 Removing the Modulus

On a restricted domain, the sign inside the modulus is fixed, so the modulus can be removed: $|x-a| = x-a$ for $x \geqslant a$, $|x-a| = -(x-a)$ for $x < a$.

Example 5.2

$\mathrm{f}: x \to \left|\dfrac{2x+4}{3-x}\right|$, $x \in \mathbb{R}$, $x \leqslant -2$ (2023 A-Level P1 Q7, with the domain restricted to $x \leqslant a$, $a = -2$)

$$y = \mathrm{f}(x) = \left|\frac{2x+4}{3-x}\right|$$
$$= -\frac{2x+4}{3-x} \qquad (x \leqslant -2)$$



Note

Whenever you are asked to find f^{-1} and there is a modulus, you are usually able to remove it in the first step by determining whether the region of the graph is positive or negative for the domain of f.

5.3 Composite Functions

	Working
Exists	**Exists:** $R_g \subseteq D_f$ **Does not exist:** $x_0 \in R_g, x_0 \notin D_f \therefore R_g \not\subseteq D_f$
Rule	sub $g(x)$ into $f(x)$: $f[g(x)]$
Domain	$D_{fg} = D_g$: rightmost function's domain (e.g. $D_{fgh} = D_h$)
Range	$D_g \xrightarrow{g} R_g \xrightarrow{f} R_{fg}$: sketch $y = f(x)$ on the domain R_g Alternatively, sketch the graph of $fg(x)$ for D_{fg} (avoid, as fg might usually be quite hard to deal with).

5.3.1 Composite with a Piecewise Function

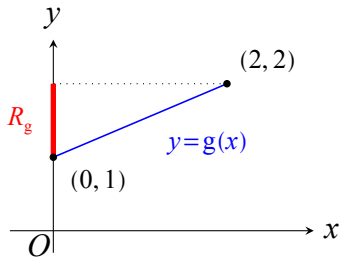
Split according to which piece of f the value $g(x)$ lands in.

Example 5.3

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} x^2, & 0 \leqslant x < 1 \\ 2-x, & 1 \leqslant x \leqslant 2 \end{cases} \qquad g(x) = \frac{x}{2} + 1, \ 0 \leqslant x \leqslant 2$$

$$R_g = [1, 2]$$

$$\therefore fg(x) = f(g(x)) = 2 - \left(\frac{x}{2} + 1\right) = 1 - \frac{x}{2}, \quad 0 \leqslant x \leqslant 2$$

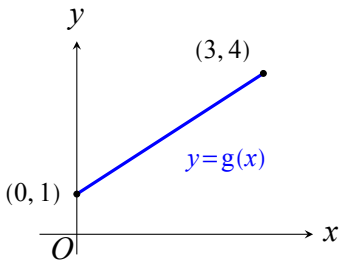


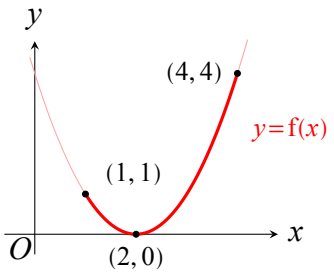
Example 5.4

$g(x) = x + 1, \ 0 \leqslant x \leqslant 3; \quad f(x) = (x-2)^2, \ x \in \mathbb{R}$. Assume fg exists.

$$\begin{array}{ccccc} D_g & \xrightarrow{g} & R_g & \xrightarrow{f} & R_{fg} \\ [0, 3] & & [1, 4] & & [0, 4] \end{array}$$

$$\therefore R_{fg} = [0, 4]$$





5.4 Functional Powers and Self-Inverse Functions

$\mathrm{f}^2(x)=\mathrm{f}[\mathrm{f}(x)]$ exists if $R_\mathrm{f}\subseteq D_\mathrm{f}$; similarly f^3, f^4, … Note $\mathrm{f}^2(x)\neq[\mathrm{f}(x)]^2$.

Self-inverse: $\mathrm{f}=\mathrm{f}^{-1}\iff \mathrm{f}^2(x)=x$ for all $x\in D_\mathrm{f}$ (graph symmetric about $y=x$).

Periodic composition pattern. If $\mathrm{g}^2(x)=x$:

$$\mathrm{g}^n(x)=\begin{cases}\mathrm{g}(x), & n \text{ odd}\\ x, & n \text{ even}\end{cases}$$

$$\mathrm{g}^{2027}(x)=\mathrm{g}(x).$$

Similarly, if $\mathrm{f}^3(x)=x$, the pattern repeats every 3: $\mathrm{f}^n=\mathrm{f}^{n \bmod 3}$, and $\mathrm{f}^{-1}=\mathrm{f}^2$.

5.5 Piecewise and Periodic Functions

$$\mathrm{f}:x\mapsto\begin{cases}\mathrm{f}_1(x), & x\in D_1\\ \mathrm{f}_2(x), & x\in D_2\end{cases},\qquad \mathrm{f}(x)=\mathrm{f}(x+p)$$

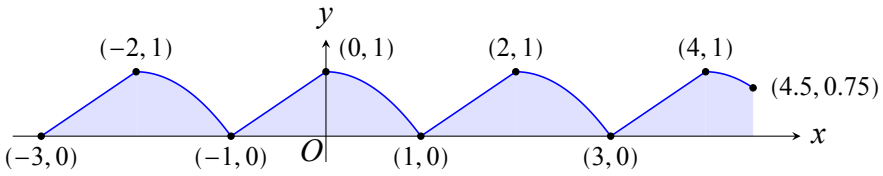
$\mathrm{f}(x)=\mathrm{f}(x+p)$: the graph repeats every p units (period p).

→ Always sketch the **original copy** first, then copy & paste.

→ Never sub any x value into f that is outside the domain of the original copy: shift by multiples of p first.

Example 5.5

$$\mathrm{f}(x)=\begin{cases}1-x^2, & 0\leqslant x<1\\ x-1, & 1\leqslant x<2\end{cases},\ \mathrm{f}(x)=\mathrm{f}(x+2),\ -3\leqslant x\leqslant 4.5$$



$$\mathrm{f}(4.5)=\mathrm{f}(4.5-4)=\mathrm{f}(0.5)=1-0.5^2=0.75$$

Area under a periodic function: area over n full periods $=n\times$ area over one period.

$$\begin{aligned}\int_{-3}^{4.5}\mathrm{f}(x)\,\mathrm{d}x&=\int_{-3}^{3}\mathrm{f}(x)\,\mathrm{d}x+\int_{3}^{4}\mathrm{f}(x)\,\mathrm{d}x+\int_{4}^{4.5}\mathrm{f}(x)\,\mathrm{d}x\\&=3\int_{0}^{2}\mathrm{f}(x)\,\mathrm{d}x+\int_{1}^{2}(x-1)\,\mathrm{d}x+\int_{0}^{0.5}(1-x^2)\,\mathrm{d}x\\&=\frac{107}{24}\approx 4.46\end{aligned}$$

5.5.1 Inverse of a Piecewise Function

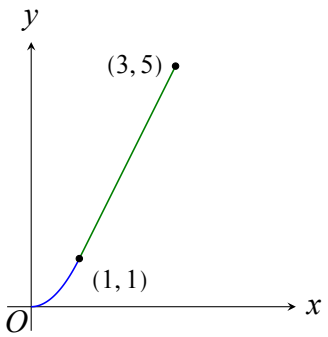
Check one-to-one using the ranges of the pieces (they must not overlap and each piece is one-to-one); then invert each piece, with domain = range of that piece.

Example 5.6

$$\mathrm{h}(x)=\begin{cases} x^2, & 0\leqslant x\leqslant 1 \\ 2x-1, & 1<x\leqslant 3 \end{cases}$$

ranges: $[0,1]$ and $(1,5]$ (no overlap)

$$\mathrm{h}^{-1}(x)=\begin{cases} \sqrt{x}, & 0\leqslant x\leqslant 1 \\ \dfrac{x+1}{2}, & 1<x\leqslant 5 \end{cases}$$



6 Sequences and Series

A **sequence** is a set of numbers arranged in a definite order, A **series** is the sum of the terms of a sequence:

$u_1,\ u_2,\ u_3,\ \ldots,\quad u_n$: the nth term

$$S_n = u_1 + u_2 + \cdots + u_n = \sum_{r=1}^{n} u_r, \qquad S_\infty = u_1 + u_2 + u_3 + \cdots = \sum_{r=1}^{\infty} u_r \quad \text{(infinite series)}$$

6.1 Recurrence Relations

A recurrence relation defines u_n in terms of one or more preceding terms, together with the initial condition(s). **First-order recurrence relation**: requires only one initial condition; defined using only the immediately preceding term, i.e. u_{n-1} only.

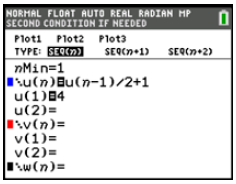
Second-order recurrence relation: requires two initial conditions; defined using the two preceding terms, i.e. u_{n-1}, u_{n-2}.

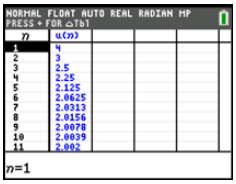
Example 6.1

$$u_{r+1} = \frac{u_r}{2} + 1, \quad u_1 = 4$$

$$u_2 = 3, \quad u_3 = \frac{5}{2}, \quad u_4 = \frac{9}{4}$$

Rule: $u_{r+1} = \frac{u_r}{2} + 1$; initial condition: $u_1 = 4$.





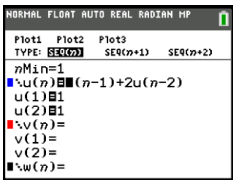
Example 6.2

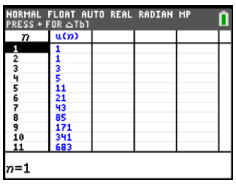
$$u_{r+1} = 2u_r + 1, \quad u_1 = 1$$

Example 6.3

$$u_{n+2} = u_{n+1} + 2u_n, \quad u_1 = 1, \quad u_2 = 1$$

$$1,\ 1,\ 3,\ 5,\ 11,\ 21,\ 43,\ \ldots$$





Example 6.4

(GP)

$$u_{n+1} = ru_n, \quad u_1 = a$$

$$a,\ ar,\ ar^2,\ \ldots$$

Example 6.5

(AP)

$$u_{n+1} = u_n + d, \quad u_1 = a$$

$$a,\ a+d,\ a+2d,\ \ldots$$

(However, this is not unique.)

$$u_{n+2} - 2u_{n+1} + u_n = 0, \quad u_1 = a, \quad u_2 = a + d$$

6.1.1 Limit of a Sequence

$$\text{As } r\to\infty,\ u_r=\frac{1}{r}\to 0 \quad \text{or} \quad \lim_{r\to\infty}(u_r)=\lim_{r\to\infty}\left(\frac{1}{r}\right)=0$$

$$\text{As } r\to\infty,\ u_r\to L \quad \text{or} \quad \lim_{r\to\infty}(u_r)=L \quad \text{(convergent)}$$

$u_r\to L\Rightarrow u_{r+1}\to L,\ u_{r+2}\to L,\ \ldots$

(For recurrence relations: if the sequence is given to be convergent, change all u_n, u_{n+1}, u_{n+2} to L and solve for L.)

Rules ($\lim u_r$, $\lim v_r$ real):

$$\lim_{r\to\infty}(a)=a$$

$$\lim_{r\to\infty}(u_r\pm v_r)=\lim_{r\to\infty}(u_r)\pm\lim_{r\to\infty}(v_r)$$

$$\lim_{r\to\infty}(u_r v_r)=\lim_{r\to\infty}(u_r)\times\lim_{r\to\infty}(v_r)$$

$$\lim_{r\to\infty}\left(\frac{u_r}{v_r}\right)=\frac{\lim_{r\to\infty}(u_r)}{\lim_{r\to\infty}(v_r)},\quad \lim_{r\to\infty}(v_r)\neq 0$$

6.2 Sigma Notation

$$\sum_{r=m}^{n}\mathrm{f}(r)=\mathrm{f}(m)+\mathrm{f}(m+1)+\cdots+\mathrm{f}(n)$$

$$S_n=\sum_{r=1}^{n}u_r=u_1+u_2+\cdots+u_n$$ (By default, S_n starts from $r=1$ unless otherwise stated.)

Properties:

$$\text{no. of terms in } \sum_{r=m}^{n}u_r:\ n-m+1$$

$$\sum_{r=m}^{n}a=(n-m+1)a$$

$$\sum_{r=m}^{n}au_r=a\sum_{r=m}^{n}u_r$$

$$\sum_{r=m}^{n}(u_r\pm v_r)=\sum_{r=m}^{n}u_r\pm\sum_{r=m}^{n}v_r$$

$$\sum_{r=m}^{n}u_r=\sum_{r=1}^{n}u_r-\sum_{r=1}^{m-1}u_r$$

(To remember the last three, note that the properties are similar to what you can do in integration.)

6.3 Standard Formulas

$$\sum_{r=1}^{n} r = \frac{n(n+1)}{2}$$

AP with first term 1, common difference 1:

$$\sum_{r=1}^{n} r = 1+2+\cdots+n$$

$$S_n = \frac{n}{2}[2(1)+(n-1)(1)]$$

$$= \frac{n(n+1)}{2}$$

$$\sum_{r=1}^{n} a^r = \frac{a(a^n-1)}{a-1}, \quad a \neq 1$$

GP with first term a, common ratio a:

$$\sum_{r=1}^{n} a^r = a+a^2+\cdots+a^n$$

$$= \frac{a(a^n-1)}{a-1}$$

$$\sum_{r=1}^{n} r^2 = \frac{n(n+1)(2n+1)}{6}$$

$$\sum_{r=1}^{n} r^3 = \left[\frac{n(n+1)}{2}\right]^2 = \frac{n^2(n+1)^2}{4}$$

Note

$\sum r^2$ and $\sum r^3$ are given in the exam if needed. All four results hold only if r starts from 1.

6.4 Augmented Forms

Example 6.6

$$\sum_{r=1}^{n} \frac{4}{5^{2r+1}} = 4\sum_{r=1}^{n} \frac{1}{5\cdot 25^r}$$

$$= \frac{4}{5}\sum_{r=1}^{n} \left(\frac{1}{25}\right)^r$$

$$= \frac{4}{5}\cdot \frac{\frac{1}{25}\left[1-\left(\frac{1}{25}\right)^n\right]}{1-\frac{1}{25}}$$

$$= \frac{4}{5}\cdot\frac{1}{24}\left[1-\left(\frac{1}{25}\right)^n\right]$$

$$= \frac{1}{30}\left(1-\frac{1}{25^n}\right)$$

Note

To use the $\sum a^r$ formula, the power must be exactly r, not $r+1$, not $2r$. Rewrite first.

6.5 Convergence

Example 6.7

Given $u_n = \frac{1}{n(n+1)}$ and $S_n = \sum_{r=1}^{n} u_r = 1 - \frac{1}{n+1}$.

Convergence of u_n: let $n \to \infty$ in u_n.	**Convergence of S_n:** let $n \to \infty$ in S_n.
$u_n = \frac{1}{n(n+1)}$ As $n \to \infty,\ u_n \to 0$	$S_n = \sum_{r=1}^{n} \frac{1}{r(r+1)}$ $= 1 - \frac{1}{n+1}$ As $n \to \infty,\ S_n \to 1$ (finite) $\therefore$ the series converges, $S_\infty = 1$

Note

(1) $u_n \to 0$ is not strong enough evidence that S_n converges, e.g. $1+\frac{1}{2}+\frac{1}{3}+\frac{1}{4}+\cdots=\infty$.
(2) However, if S_n converges, then u_n **must** converge to 0.

6.6 Finding u_n or S_n from Each Other

6.6.1 Finding u_n from S_n

$$u_n = S_n - S_{n-1}, \quad u_1 = S_1$$

Example 6.8

$$\begin{aligned} S_n &= n^2 + 2n \\ u_n &= S_n - S_{n-1} \\ &= (n^2+2n) - [(n-1)^2 + 2(n-1)] \\ &= 2n+1 \end{aligned}$$

6.6.2 Finding S_n from u_n

Example 6.9

$$\begin{aligned} u_r &= 3r^2 + r \\ S_n &= \sum_{r=1}^{n} (3r^2 + r) \\ &= 3\sum_{r=1}^{n} r^2 + \sum_{r=1}^{n} r \\ &= 3 \cdot \frac{n(n+1)(2n+1)}{6} + \frac{n(n+1)}{2} \end{aligned}$$

7 Arithmetic and Geometric Progressions

An **arithmetic progression (AP)** is a sequence with a common difference d, e.g. 2, 5, 8, 11, …

A **geometric progression (GP)** is a sequence with a common ratio r, e.g. 3, 6, 12, 24, …

u_n: the nth term, S_n: the sum of the first term up to the nth term.

	AP	**GP**
Property	common difference d	common ratio r
Example	2, 5, 8, 11, … $(d=3)$	3, 6, 12, 24, … $(r=2)$
u_n	$u_n=a+(n-1)d$	$u_n=ar^{n-1}$
S_n	$S_n=\frac{n}{2}[2a+(n-1)d]$ $S_n=\frac{n}{2}(a+l)$	$S_n=\frac{a(1-r^n)}{1-r}=\frac{a(r^n-1)}{r-1}, r\neq 1$
S_∞	not convergent	$S_\infty=\frac{a}{1-r}$, only if $\lvert r\rvert<1$
Proving	$u_{n+1}-u_n=d$ (constant) $u_3-u_2=k_1, u_2-u_1=k_2$ $k_1\neq k_2 \therefore$ not an AP	$\frac{u_{n+1}}{u_n}=r$ (constant) $\frac{u_3}{u_2}=k_1, \frac{u_2}{u_1}=k_2$ $k_1\neq k_2 \therefore$ not a GP

However, to prove that something IS an AP, you have to do it in terms of n. You cannot compare u_1, u_2 and u_3 in the same way that we prove that something is not an AP.

Note: AP: u_2, u_4, u_6, … is an AP (common difference $2d$), GP: u_2, u_4, u_6, … is a GP (common ratio r^2).

Important Note

Remember that you can use a GC table whenever needed, especially when the variable you are solving for is an integer. It is very common in this chapter because a lot of the time you are solving for $n\in\mathbb{Z}^+$.

7.1 Summing

Example 7.1

AP: first term 9, common difference 2. Sum of the 20th to 50th terms inclusive:

$$\begin{aligned}S_{50}-S_{19}&=\frac{50}{2}[2(9)+49(2)]-\frac{19}{2}[2(9)+18(2)]\\&=2900-513\\&=2387\end{aligned}$$

7.2 Common Questions

7.2.1 Comparing AP and GP terms

Example 7.2

[TMJC 2025 Prelim P1 Q4]

An arithmetic series has first term a and common difference d, where a and d are non-zero real constants. A convergent geometric series has first term b and common ratio r, where $b>0$ and r is a non-zero real constant. The sum of the first n terms of the geometric series is denoted by S.

It is given that the 7th, 10th and 11th terms of the arithmetic series are equal to the 3rd, 6th and 10th terms of the geometric series respectively.

$$a+6d=br^2 \quad --(1)$$
$$a+9d=br^5 \quad --(2)$$
$$a+10d=br^9 \quad --(3)$$

7.2.2 Bank Questions

> **Important Note**
>
> Any bank questions will come in the form $u_{n+1}=pu_n+q$, where p and q are constants.

Example 7.3

[TJC 2025 Prelim P1 Q7]

Janice, on the other hand, deposits \$100 at the start of every month into a bank account that earns 0.3% interest per month, with interest calculated and added into the account at the end of each month.

Find the amount that Janice will have in her savings account at the end of N months.

nth mth	1 Jan26	2	⋯	N
Amount at start of month (\$)	100	$100+100(1.003)$ $=100(1+1.003)$		
Amount at end of month (\$)	$100(1.003)$	$100(1+1.003)(1.003)$ $=100\,(1.003+1.003^2)$	⋯	$100\,(1.003+1.003^2+\cdots+1.003^N)$ $=\frac{100(1.003)\,(1.003^N-1)}{1.003-1}$

7.2.3 Contextual Questions

For general contextual questions, it is important to determine whether the question is asking for u_n or S_n.

Example 7.4

[RVHS 2025 Prelim P2 Q4]

The dosage of medicine given to a patient needs to be carefully managed in order to achieve the desired result.

(a) To give the patient time to adapt to a particular medicine, the dosage is slowly increased over time. The patient is initially given a dosage of 0.75 units. The dosage is increased by 0.5 units each day until a total of at least 10 units of medicine has been taken. Find the least number of days it takes to achieve this, and the dosage on that day. [4]

(b) The doctor prescribed a new medication to another patient. After n days, the total dosage of the new medicine administered to the patient is given by $\frac{3}{20}\left(\frac{5^n-4^n}{5^{n-1}}\right)$ units.

(i) Show that the increase in dosage of the new medicine administered per day follows a geometric progression. [3]

(ii) Find the total dosage of the new medicine administered to the patient after a long period of treatment. [2]

(c) Doctors can manage the medication so that the daily dosage of medicine increases as an arithmetic progression. Explain in context why the arithmetic progression is not a preferred model for the dosage of medication. [1]

8 Differentiation

8.1 Basic Differentials

y	$\frac{dy}{dx}$
x^n	nx^{n-1}
$\sin x$	$\cos x$
$\cos x$	$-\sin x$
$\tan x$	$\sec^2 x$
$\log_b x$	$\frac{1}{x \ln b}$, b constant
$e^{f(x)}$	$f'(x)\, e^{f(x)}$
$a^{f(x)}$	$f'(x)\, a^{f(x)} \ln a$, a constant
$p(x)\, q(x)$	$p'(x)\, q(x) + p(x)\, q'(x)$
$\frac{p(x)}{q(x)}$	$\frac{p'(x)\, q(x) - p(x)\, q'(x)}{[q(x)]^2}$

y	$\frac{dy}{dx}$
$\sin^{-1} x$	$\frac{1}{\sqrt{1-x^2}}$
$\cos^{-1} x$	$-\frac{1}{\sqrt{1-x^2}}$
$\tan^{-1} x$	$\frac{1}{1+x^2}$
$\sec x$	$\sec x \tan x$
$\operatorname{cosec} x$	$-\operatorname{cosec} x \cot x$
$\cot x$	$-\operatorname{cosec}^2 x$

Important Note

Remember to multiply by the differential when you are differentiating. Bracket, not divide.

8.1.1 Implicit Differentiation

Example 8.1

$$x^3y+1+\ln y=\cos(xy)$$

Differentiate both sides with respect to x:

$$3x^2y+x^3\frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}x}+0+\frac{1}{y}\frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}x}=-\sin(xy)\left(y+x\frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}x}\right)$$

$$3x^2y+x^3\frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}x}+\frac{1}{y}\frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}x}=-y\sin(xy)-x\sin(xy)\frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}x}$$

$$x^3\frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}x}+\frac{1}{y}\frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}x}+x\sin(xy)\frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}x}=-y\sin(xy)-3x^2y$$

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}x}\left(x^3+\frac{1}{y}+x\sin(xy)\right)=-y\left(\sin(xy)+3x^2\right)$$

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}x}\left(\frac{x^3y+1+xy\sin(xy)}{y}\right)=-y\left(\sin(xy)+3x^2\right)$$

$$\therefore\ \frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}x}=-\frac{y^2\left(\sin(xy)+3x^2\right)}{x^3y+1+xy\sin(xy)}$$

8.1.2 Parametric Differentiation

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}x}=\frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}t}\times\frac{\mathrm{d}t}{\mathrm{d}x}$$

Example 8.2

$$x=t+\sin t,\quad y=1-\cos t$$

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}x}{\mathrm{d}t}=1+\cos t,\quad \frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}t}=\sin t$$

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}t}{\mathrm{d}x}=\frac{1}{\frac{\mathrm{d}x}{\mathrm{d}t}}=\frac{1}{1+\cos t}$$

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}x}=\frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}t}\times\frac{\mathrm{d}t}{\mathrm{d}x}$$

$$=\frac{\sin t}{1+\cos t}$$

$$=\frac{2\sin\frac{t}{2}\cos\frac{t}{2}}{2\cos^2\frac{t}{2}}$$

$$=\frac{\sin\frac{t}{2}}{\cos\frac{t}{2}}$$

$$\therefore\ \frac{\mathrm{d}y}{\mathrm{d}x}=\tan\frac{t}{2}$$